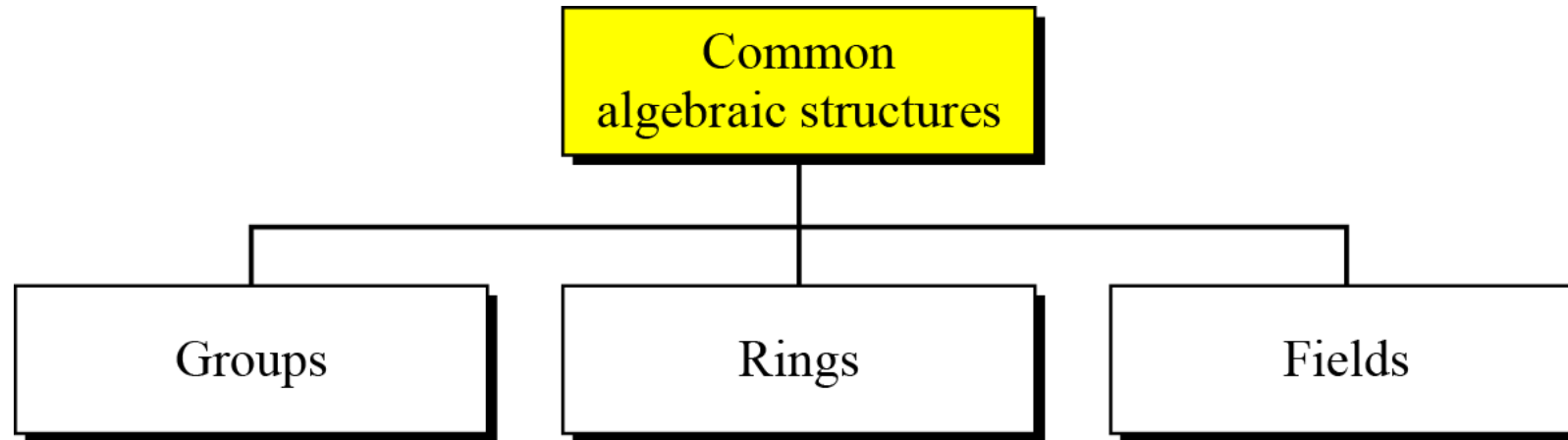


Algebraic Structure

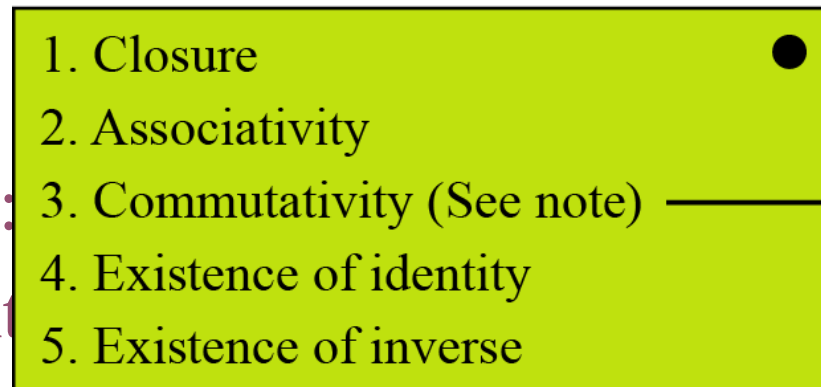
Algebraic Structures



- *Cryptography requires sets of integers and specific operations that are defined for those sets*
- *The **combination of the set and the operations** that are applied to the elements of the set is called an **algebraic structure***
- *In this chapter, we will define three common algebraic structures: groups, rings, and fields.*

Groups

- A group (G) is a set of elements with a binary operation ($\bullet$) that satisfies four properties (or axioms), denoted as $(G, \bullet)$



Note:
The third property needs to be satisfied only for a commutative group.

Closure:

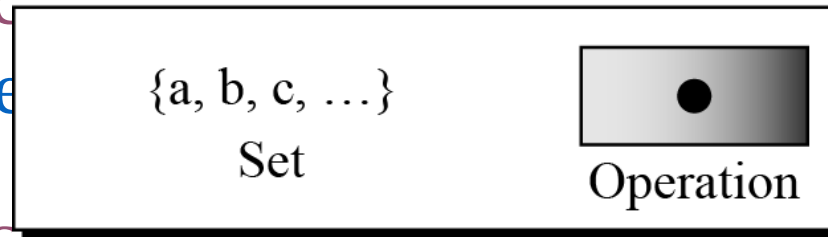
Associativity:

Existence of identity:

that $a \bullet e = a$

Existence of inverse:

that $a \bullet b = e$



Group

that $a \bullet b = b \bullet a = e$, b is inverse of a and vice versa

...Groups

- A group $(G, \bullet)$ is called commutative or abelian group if the operator ' $\bullet$ ' satisfies the commutative property
 - Commutative property: for all $a, b \in G$, $a \bullet b = b \bullet a$

Although a group involves a single operation, the properties imposed on the operation allow the use of a pair of operations as long as they are inverses of each other.

Example: groups

The set of residue integers with the addition operator,

$$G = \langle \mathbb{Z}_n, + \rangle,$$

is a commutative group. Also, We can perform addition and subtraction on the elements of this set without moving out of the set.

The set $\mathbb{Z}_n^*$ with the multiplication operator, $G = \langle \mathbb{Z}_n^*, \times \rangle$, is also an abelian (commutative) group.

Let us define a set $G = \langle \{a, b, c, d\}, \bullet \rangle$ and the operation as shown in following table

every element $x \cdot y$ matches its mirror $y \cdot x$ across the diagonal, the group is confirmed to be abelian.

e.g. $a \cdot c = c$

$c \cdot a = c$

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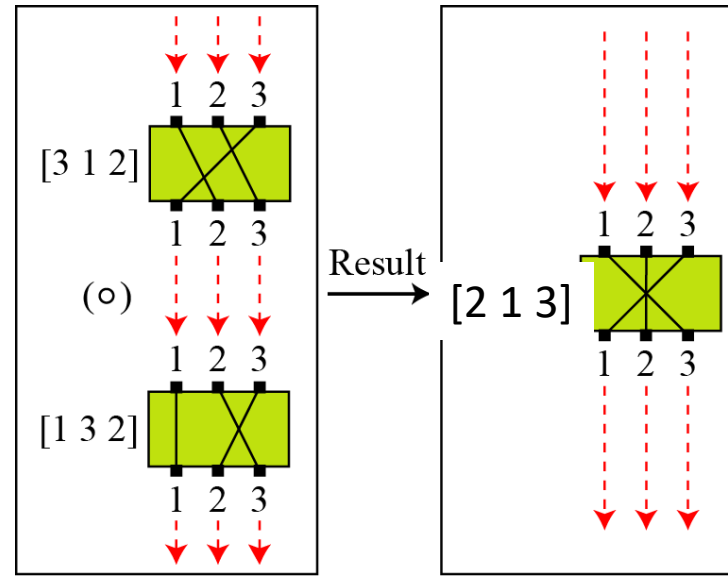
$\bullet$	a	b	c	d
a	a	b	c	d
b	b	c	d	a
c	c	d	a	b
d	d	a	b	c

This is an abelian group (follows all properties)

a is the identity element.

Permutation group

Each green rectangle is a permutation machine



This is not an abelian group

$\circ$	$[1\ 2\ 3]$	$[1\ 3\ 2]$	$[2\ 1\ 3]$	$[2\ 3\ 1]$	$[3\ 1\ 2]$	$[3\ 2\ 1]$
$[1\ 2\ 3]$	$[1\ 2\ 3]$	$[1\ 3\ 2]$	$[2\ 1\ 3]$	$[2\ 3\ 1]$	$[3\ 1\ 2]$	$[3\ 2\ 1]$
$[1\ 3\ 2]$	$[1\ 3\ 2]$	$[1\ 2\ 3]$	$[2\ 3\ 1]$	$[2\ 1\ 3]$	$[3\ 2\ 1]$	$[3\ 1\ 2]$
$[2\ 1\ 3]$	$[2\ 1\ 3]$	$[3\ 1\ 2]$	$[1\ 2\ 3]$	$[3\ 2\ 1]$	$[1\ 3\ 2]$	$[2\ 3\ 1]$
$[2\ 3\ 1]$	$[2\ 3\ 1]$	$[3\ 2\ 1]$	$[1\ 3\ 2]$	$[3\ 1\ 2]$	$[1\ 2\ 3]$	$[2\ 1\ 3]$
$[3\ 1\ 2]$	$[3\ 1\ 2]$	$[2\ 1\ 3]$	$[3\ 2\ 1]$	$[1\ 2\ 3]$	$[2\ 3\ 1]$	$[1\ 3\ 2]$
$[3\ 2\ 1]$	$[3\ 2\ 1]$	$[2\ 3\ 1]$	$[3\ 1\ 2]$	$[1\ 3\ 2]$	$[2\ 1\ 3]$	$[1\ 2\ 3]$

This is the permutation group on three symbols, The operation $\circ$ is composition of permutations.

...Permutation group

- set of permutations with the composition operation is a group
 - This implies that using two permutations one after another **cannot strengthen** the security of a cipher
 - because we can always find a permutation that can do the same job because of the **closure property**

Using permutations alone, no matter how many rounds, is equivalent to a single permutation.

This is why: **A pure transposition cipher or any cipher that only permutes symbols is cryptographically weak.**

...Groups

- **Finite Group:** a group G with finite elements (otherwise, infinite group)

$Z_6 = \{0, 1, 2, 3, 4, 5\}$ under addition mod 6
(Finite group $\rightarrow$ 6 elements)

- **Order of a Group $|G|$:** Number of elements in the group (if finite); otherwise, infinity (∞)

$$|Z_6| = 6 \quad \text{and} \quad |Z| = \infty$$

- **Subgroup:** A subset H of G is a subgroup of G , if H itself is a group under the operation of G

Subgroups

- If $a, b \in H \rightarrow c = a \bullet b \in H$
- $e \in G, H$
- If $a \in H \rightarrow a^{-1} \in H$
- $(\{e\}, \bullet)$ is subgroup of G, H (The **set containing only the identity element is always a subgroup**)
- **G is a subgroup of itself**

Example: subgroup

Is the group $H = \langle \mathbb{Z}_{10}, + \rangle$ a subgroup of the group $G = \langle \mathbb{Z}_{12}, + \rangle$?

The answer is **no**. The operations defined for these two groups are different. The operation in H is addition modulo 10; the operation in G is addition modulo 12. Because the rules for adding elements differ (e.g., $7+5$ is 2 in H , but 0 in G), H cannot be a subgroup of G .

Cyclic Subgroups

- If a subgroup of a group can be generated using the **power of an element**, the subgroup is called the **cyclic subgroup**

$$a^n \rightarrow a \bullet a \bullet \dots \bullet a \quad (n \text{ times})$$

Example: cyclic subgroup

Four cyclic subgroups can be made from the group $G = \langle \mathbb{Z}_6, + \rangle$. They are $H_1 = \{0\}$, $H_2 = \{0, 2, 4\}$, $H_3 = \{0, 3\}$, and $H_4 = \mathbb{Z}_6$.

$$0^0 \bmod 6 = 0$$

$$1^0 \bmod 6 = 0$$

$$1^1 \bmod 6 = 1$$

$$1^2 \bmod 6 = (1 + 1) \bmod 6 = 2$$

$$1^3 \bmod 6 = (1 + 1 + 1) \bmod 6 = 3$$

$$1^4 \bmod 6 = (1 + 1 + 1 + 1) \bmod 6 = 4$$

$$1^5 \bmod 6 = (1 + 1 + 1 + 1 + 1) \bmod 6 = 5$$

$$2^0 \bmod 6 = 0$$

$$2^1 \bmod 6 = 2$$

$$2^2 \bmod 6 = (2 + 2) \bmod 6 = 4$$

$$3^0 \bmod 6 = 0$$

$$3^1 \bmod 6 = 3$$

$$4^0 \bmod 6 = 0$$

$$4^1 \bmod 6 = 4$$

$$4^2 \bmod 6 = (4 + 4) \bmod 6 = 2$$

$$5^0 \bmod 6 = 0$$

$$5^1 \bmod 6 = 5$$

$$5^2 \bmod 6 = 4$$

$$5^3 \bmod 6 = 3$$

$$5^4 \bmod 6 = 2$$

$$5^5 \bmod 6 = 1$$

...Example: cyclic subgroup

Three cyclic subgroups can be made from the group $G = \langle \mathbb{Z}_{10}^*, \times \rangle$. G has only four elements: 1, 3, 7, and 9. The cyclic subgroups are $H_1 = \{1\}$, $H_2 = \{1, 9\}$, and $H_3 = \mathbb{Z}_{10}^*$.

$$1^0 \bmod 10 = 1$$

$$3^0 \bmod 10 = 1$$

$$3^1 \bmod 10 = 3$$

$$3^2 \bmod 10 = 9$$

$$3^3 \bmod 10 = 7$$

$$7^0 \bmod 10 = 1$$

$$7^1 \bmod 10 = 7$$

$$7^2 \bmod 10 = 9$$

$$7^3 \bmod 10 = 3$$

$$9^0 \bmod 10 = 1$$

$$9^1 \bmod 10 = 9$$

Cyclic Groups

- A group G is cyclic **if there exists an element g** (called a **generator**) such that every element in G can be written as g^k (or $k \cdot g$ for additive groups) for some integer k .

$$\{e, g, g^2, \dots, g^{n-1}\}, \text{ where } g^n = e$$

Cyclic Groups

As seen in the earlier examples:

- a. The group $G = \langle \mathbb{Z}_6, + \rangle$ is a cyclic group with two generators, $g = 1$ and $g = 5$.
- b. The group $G = \langle \mathbb{Z}_{10}^*, \times \rangle$ is a cyclic group with two generators, $g = 3$ and $g = 7$.

Subgroup property

Assume that G is a group, and H is a subgroup of G . If the order of G and H are $|G|$ and $|H|$, respectively, then $|H|$ divides $|G|$.

Let:

$$G = \mathbb{Z}_{12} = \{0, 1, 2, \dots, 11\}$$

Take the subgroup:

$$H = \{0, 4, 8\}$$

- $|G| = 12$
- $|H| = 3$

$$12 = 4 \times 3$$

Order of an Element

The order of an element a , $\text{ord}(a)$, is the smallest number n such that $a^n = e$ (for multiplicative notation) or $a * n = e$ (for additive notation)

In other words, $\text{ord}(a)$ is the order of the cyclic group generated by a

Example: $\text{ord}(a)$

a. In the group $G = \langle \mathbb{Z}_{10}^*, \times \rangle$, the orders of the elements are:

$\text{ord}(1) = 1$, $\text{ord}(3) = 4$, $\text{ord}(7) = 4$, $\text{ord}(9) = 2$. (e.g. for $\text{ord}(3) \Rightarrow$
 $3^4=81 \equiv 1 \pmod{10}$ $\text{ord}(7) \Rightarrow 7^4=2401 \equiv \mathbf{1} \pmod{10}$)

b. In the group $G = \langle \mathbb{Z}_6, + \rangle$, the orders of the elements are:

$\text{ord}(0) = 1$, $\text{ord}(1) = 6$, $\text{ord}(2) = 3$, $\text{ord}(3) = 2$, $\text{ord}(4) = 3$,
 $\text{ord}(5) = 6$. (e.g. for $\text{ord}(2) \Rightarrow 2 \cdot \mathbf{3} = 6 \equiv \mathbf{0} \pmod{6}$)

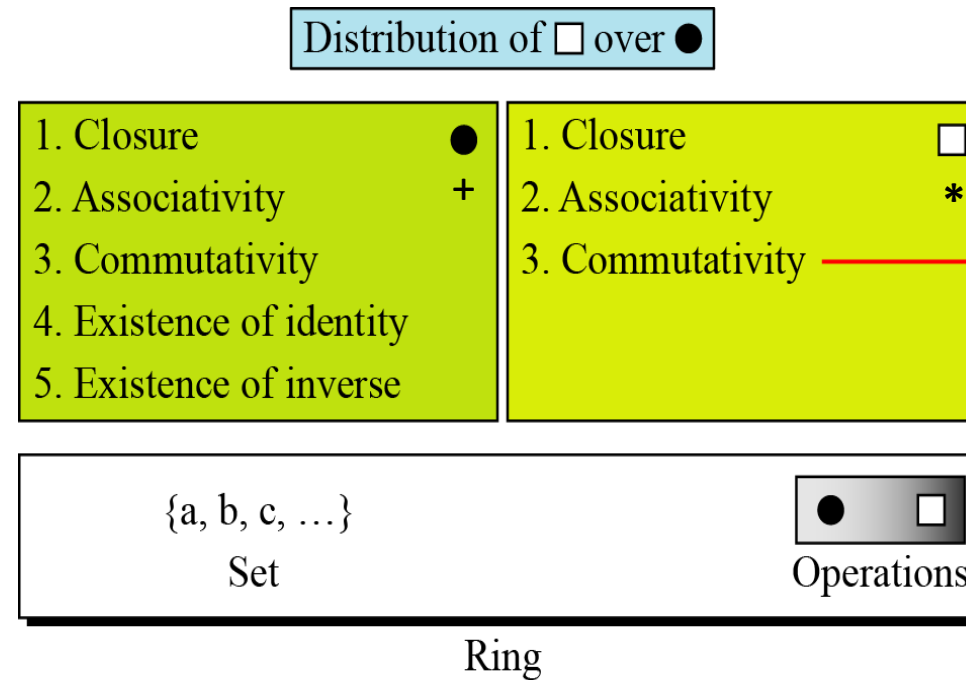
Ring

- A ring, $R = \langle \{...\}, +, * \rangle$, is an **algebraic structure with two operations**

- Respect to first operation '+' (also called addition) R is an abelian group
- Respect to second operation (normally called multiplication) '*', R is semi group i.e., closure and associative rules are satisfied
- '*' is distributive over '+'
 - $a*(b+c) = a*b + a*c$

The set Z with two operations, addition and multiplication, is a **commutative ring**. We denote it by $R = \langle Z, +, * \rangle$. Addition satisfies all of the five properties; multiplication satisfies only three properties.

If '*' is commutative, R is commutative ring



Note:
The third property is only satisfied for a commutative ring.

Field

- A field, denoted by $F = \langle \{...\}, +, * \rangle$
- $\{...\}$ is a commutative group respect to the first operation '+'
- $\{...\} - \{0\}$ (as 0 is the identity of first operation '+' has no inverse with respect to '*') is a commutative g

Distribution of ☐ over ☒

1. Closure ☒ 2. Associativity 3. Commutativity 4. Existence of identity 5. Existence of inverse	1. Closure ☐ 2. Associativity 3. Commutativity 4. Existence of identity 5. Existence of inverse
{a, b, c, ...} ☒ ☐ Set Operations	

Note:
The identity element of the first operation has no inverse with respect to the second operation.

Finite field

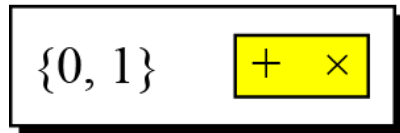
- Finite field is important in cryptography
- A field with finite number is called finite field
- Galois showed that for a field to be finite, the number of elements should be p^n , where **p is a prime and n is a positive integer**

Galois field GF(p)

- When $n = 1$, we have GF(p) field. This field can be the set $Z_p = \{0, 1, \dots, p - 1\}$, with two arithmetic operations

A very common field in this category is GF(2) with the set $\{0, 1\}$ and two operations, addition and multiplication, as shown in Figure.

GF(2)



+	0	1
0	0	1
1	1	0

Addition

$\times$	0	1
0	0	0
1	0	1

Multiplication

Inverses

Addition: $0^{-1} = 0$ $1^{-1} = 1$

Multiplication: $0^{-1} = \text{NA}$ $1^{-1} = 1$

...Galois field GF(p)

We can define GF(5) on the set Z_5 (5 is a prime) with addition and multiplication operators as shown below

GF(5)

$\{0, 1, 2, 3, 4\}$ $+$ $\times$

+	0	1	2	3	4
0	0	1	2	3	4
1	1	2	3	4	0
2	2	3	4	0	1
3	3	4	0	1	2
4	4	0	1	2	3

Addition

$\times$	0	1	2	3	4
0	0	0	0	0	0
1	0	1	2	3	4
2	0	2	4	1	3
3	0	3	1	4	2
4	0	4	3	2	1

Multiplication

Additive inverse

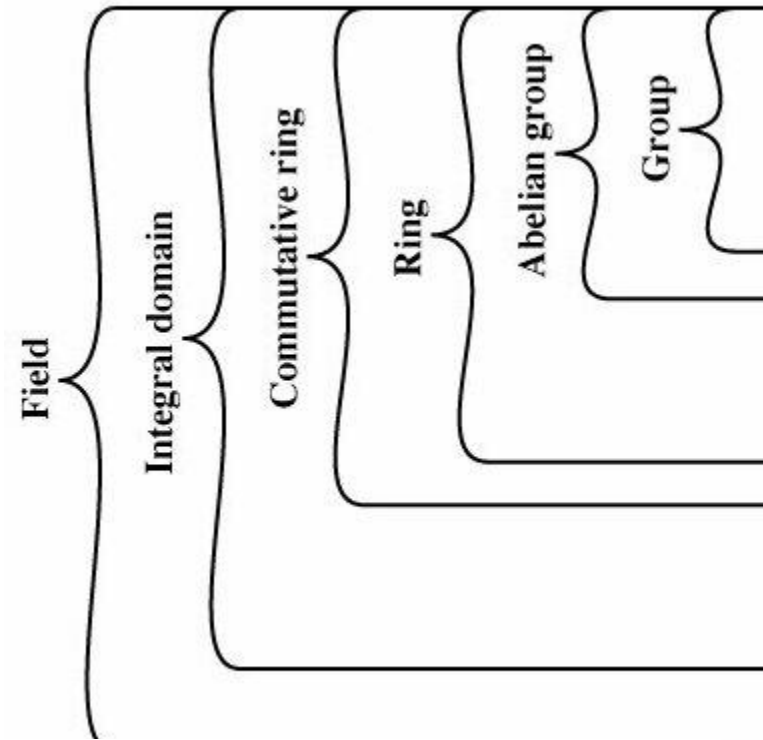
a	0	1	2	3	4
-a	0	4	3	2	1

a	0	1	2	3	4
a^{-1}	—	1	3	2	4

Multiplicative inverse

Cayley tables

Summary



Closure under addition
 Associativity of addition
 Additive identity:

Additive inverse:

Commutativity of addition:
 Closure under multiplication:
 Associativity of multiplication:
 Distributive laws:

Commutativity of multiplication
 Multiplicative identity:

No zero divisors:

Multiplicative inverse:

<i>Algebraic Structure</i>	<i>Supported Typical Operations</i>	<i>Supported Typical Sets of Integers</i>
Group	$(+ \ -)$ or $(\times \ \div)$	$\mathbf{Z}_n$ or $\mathbf{Z}_n^*$
Ring	$(+ \ -)$ and $(\times)$	$\mathbf{Z}$
Field	$(+ \ -)$ and $(\times \ \div)$	$\mathbf{Z}_p$

$\text{GF}(2^n)$

- In cryptography, we **often need to use four operations** (addition, subtraction, multiplication, and division) i.e. we **need to use fields**
- Although **$\text{GF}(p)$** can be implemented using n -bit words, **only values from 0 to $p-1$ are valid field elements**
 - numbers between p and $2^n - 1$ must be reduced modulo p and therefore cannot be directly represented or used in the field.
- On the other side, in **$\text{GF}(2^n)$** , we have a set of **2^n elements**
 - and every possible n -bit word in computer memory corresponds to a valid field element. No representation is wasted
 - That is why **$\text{GF}(2^n)$ is preferred** in many cryptographic systems

...GF(2^n)

Let us define a GF(2^2) field in which the set has four 2-bit words: {00, 01, 10, 11}. We can redefine addition and multiplication for this field in such a way that all properties of these operations are satisfied

Addition

$\oplus$	00	01	10	11
00	00	01	10	11
01	01	00	11	10
10	10	11	00	01
11	11	10	01	00

Identity: 00

Multiplication

$\otimes$	00	01	10	11
00	00	00	00	00
01	00	01	10	11
10	00	10	11	01
11	00	11	01	10

Identity: 01

00, 01, 10, 11 cannot be considered as integer from 0 to 3

Rules for multiplication

1. Multiply polynomials normally
2. Reduce modulo $m(x) = x^2 + x + 1$
3. Use arithmetic mod 2 (so $1+1=0$)

Addition and multiplication are defined in terms of polynomial

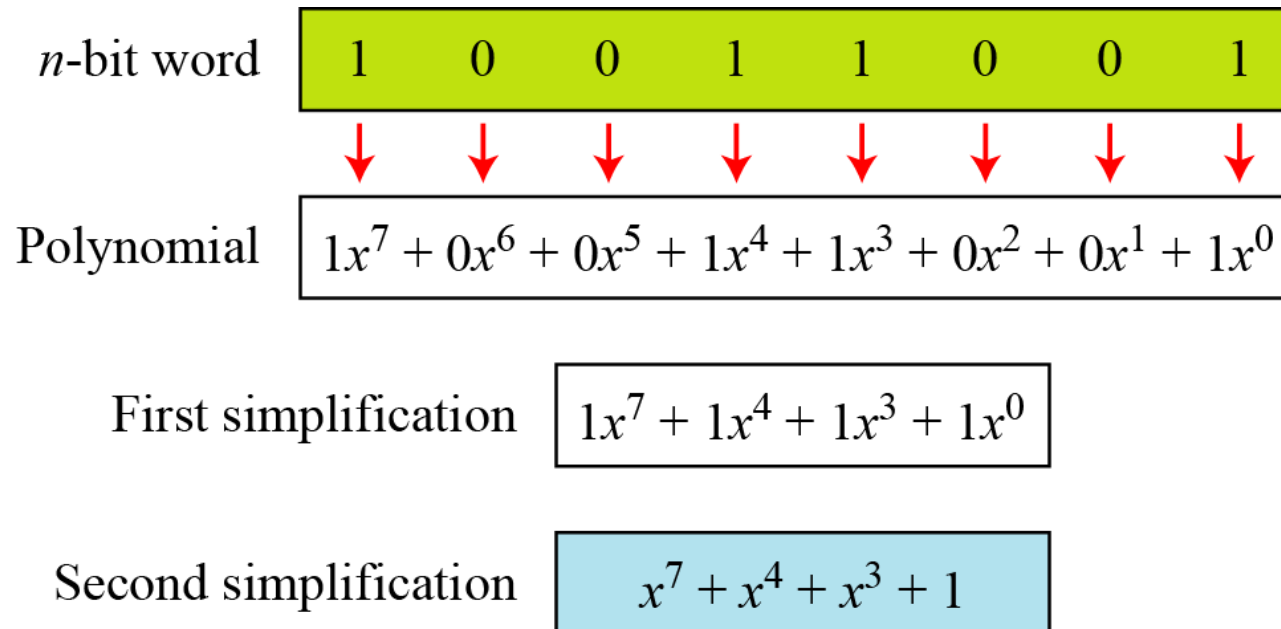
Polynomials

- A polynomial of degree $n - 1$ is an expression like

$$f(x) = a_{n-1}x^{n-1} + a_{n-2}x^{n-2} + \dots + a_1x^1 + a_0x^0$$

where a_i is called coefficient of the i^{th} term.

- 8-bit word 10011001 represents as



...Polynomials

- To find the 8-bit word related to the polynomial $x^5 + x^2 + x$
 - we first supply the omitted terms
 - Since $n = 8$, it means the polynomial is of degree 7
 - The expanded polynomial is

$$0x^7 + 0x^6 + 1x^5 + 0x^4 + 0x^3 + 1x^2 + 1x^1 + 0x^0$$

- Related 8-bit word is **00100110**

Operations on polynomials

- Any operation on polynomial involves two operations:
 - operation on coefficients and
 - operations on two polynomials
- Operations on coefficients (0/1) use $\text{GF}(2)$
- Operations on polynomials need $\text{GF}(2^n)$

Modulus respect to polynomial

- **Addition of two polynomials** never create a polynomial out side the set
- **Multiplication of two polynomials** may generates a

po	Degree	Irreducible Polynomials
• 1	1	$(x + 1), (x)$
	2	$(x^2 + x + 1)$
• 3	3	$(x^3 + x^2 + 1), (x^3 + x + 1)$
	4	$(x^4 + x^3 + x^2 + x + 1), (x^4 + x^3 + 1), (x^4 + x + 1)$
	5	$(x^5 + x^2 + 1), (x^5 + x^3 + x^2 + x + 1), (x^5 + x^4 + x^3 + x + 1),$ $(x^5 + x^4 + x^3 + x^2 + 1), (x^5 + x^4 + x^2 + x + 1)$

Addition operation

- Addition (or subtraction) over GF(2)
- $(x^5 + x^2 + x) \oplus (x^3 + x^2 + 1)$ in GF(2⁸), the symbol $\oplus$ to show that we mean polynomial addition

$$\begin{array}{rcl} 0x^7 + 0x^6 + 1x^5 + 0x^4 + 0x^3 + 1x^2 + 1x^1 + 0x^0 & \oplus & \\ 0x^7 + 0x^6 + 0x^5 + 0x^4 + 1x^3 + 1x^2 + 0x^1 + 1x^0 & & \\ \hline 0x^7 + 0x^6 + 1x^5 + 0x^4 + 1x^3 + 0x^2 + 1x^1 + 1x^0 & \rightarrow & x^5 + x^3 + x + 1 \end{array}$$

Additive **identity**: **zero polynomial** because $f(x)+0=f(x)$

Additive **inverse**: **polynomial itself** because $f(x)+f(x)=0$

Multiplication Operation

1. The coefficient multiplication is done in GF(2).
2. The multiplying x^i by x^j results in x^{i+j} .
3. The multiplication **may create terms with degree more than $n - 1$** , which means the result needs to be reduced using a modulus polynomial.

Multiplication: example

Find the result of $(x^5 + x^2 + x) \otimes (x^7 + x^4 + x^3 + x^2 + x)$ in $GF(2^8)$ with irreducible polynomial $(x^8 + x^4 + x^3 + x + 1)$, the symbol $\otimes$ to represent multiplication of two polynomials

Solution

$$\begin{aligned}
 P_1 \otimes P_2 &= x^5(x^7 + x^4 + x^3 + x^2 + x) + x^2(x^7 + x^4 + x^3 + x^2 + x) + x(x^7 + x^4 + x^3 + x^2 + x) \\
 P_1 \otimes P_2 &= x^{12} + x^9 + x^8 + x^6 + x^5 + x^4 + x^3 + x^2 + x \\
 P_1 \otimes P_2 &= (x^{12} + x^7 + x^2) \quad \text{by the } x^4 + 1 \text{ rule} \\
 &\quad \begin{array}{r}
 x^{12} + x^7 + x^2 \\
 x^{12} + x^8 + x^7 + x^5 + x^4 \\
 \hline
 x^8 + x^5 + x^4 + x^2 \\
 x^8 + x^4 + x^3 + x + 1 \\
 \hline
 \text{Remainder } x^5 + x^3 + x^2 + x + 1
 \end{array}
 \end{aligned}$$

To find the final polynomial of degree

! by the order

Algorithm for multiplication

Another way to multiply $P_1 = (x^5 + x^2 + x)$ with $P_2 = (x^7 + x^4 + x^3 + x^2 + x)$ in $GF(2^8)$ with irreducible polynomial $(x^8 + x^4 + x^3 + x + 1)$

$$\mathbf{P_1 \times P_2 = x^5P_2 + x^2P_2 + xP_2 \bmod IRP}$$

Multiply P_2 by $x, x^2, x^3, \dots$

<i>Powers</i>	<i>Operation</i>	<i>New Result</i>	<i>Reduction</i>
$x^0 \otimes P_2$		$x^7 + x^4 + x^3 + x^2 + x$	No
$x^1 \otimes P_2$	$x \otimes (x^7 + x^4 + x^3 + x^2 + x)$	$x^5 + x^2 + x + 1$	Yes
$x^2 \otimes P_2$	$x \otimes (x^5 + x^2 + x + 1)$	$x^6 + x^3 + x^2 + x$	No
$x^3 \otimes P_2$	$x \otimes (x^6 + x^3 + x^2 + x)$	$x^7 + x^4 + x^3 + x^2$	No
$x^4 \otimes P_2$	$x \otimes (x^7 + x^4 + x^3 + x^2)$	$x^5 + x + 1$	Yes
$x^5 \otimes P_2$	$x \otimes (x^5 + x + 1)$	$x^6 + x^2 + x$	No
$P_1 \times P_2 = (x^6 + x^2 + x) + (x^6 + x^3 + x^2 + x) + (x^5 + x^2 + x + 1) = x^5 + x^3 + x^2 + x + 1$			

- Multiplication by x can be achieved by one bit left shift of P_2
- Need to be reduced after multiplication if degree greater than $n-1$
 - i.e., previously degree was $n-1$ (leading bit was 1) then reduce after multiplication result (XOR-ed with IRP)

Algorithm

- if leading bit of previous result '0'
 - One left shift
- if leading bit of previous result '1'
 - One left shift
 - XOR the result with least n-1 bits of IRP

P1 = 00100110,
P2 = 10011110,
IRP = 100011011

Remove 8th bit from IRP.
100011011 >> 00011011

Powers	Shift-Left Operation	Exclusive-Or
$x^0 \otimes P_2$		10011110
$x^1 \otimes P_2$	00111100	$(00111100) \oplus 00011011 = \underline{00100111}$
$x^2 \otimes P_2$	01001110	<u>01001110</u>
$x^3 \otimes P_2$	10011100	10011100
$x^4 \otimes P_2$	00111000	$(00111000) \oplus 00011011 = 00100011$
$x^5 \otimes P_2$	01000110	<u>01000110</u>
$P_1 \otimes P_2 = (00100111) \oplus (01001110) \oplus (01000110) = 00101111$		$x^5 + x^3 + x^2 + x + 1$

$P_1 \times P_2 = x^5P_2 + x^2P_2 + xP_2 \text{ mod IRP}$

Note: A field GF(2ⁿ) may have more than one irreducible polynomials

Using generator

- It is **easier to define the elements of $GF(2^n)$ using a generator**
- A generator is a special element of the field that acts like a "root" of the irreducible polynomial.
 - If your irreducible polynomial is $f(x)$, then g is defined such that $f(g) = 0$
- The **complete set of elements in $GF(2^n)$ using this generator is $\{0, g^0, g^1, g^2, \dots, g^N\}$, where $N = 2^n - 2$. e.g. for $GF(2^4)$ $N=2^4-2=14$... let's see on the next slide**

Elements of GF(2⁴): IRP $g^4 + g + 1$

- $g^4 + g + 1 = 0 \Rightarrow g^4 = g + 1$ (GF(2) rule: Addition = subtraction)

- The elements 0, g^0 , g^1 , g^2 and g^3 can be easily generated

$$g^5 \bmod g^4 + g + 1 = g^2 + g$$

0	=	0	=	0	=	0	→	0	=	(0000)
g^0	=	g^0	=	g^0	=	g^0	→	g^0	=	(0001)
g^1	=	g^1	=	g^1	=	g^1	→	g^1	=	(0010)
g^2	=	g^2	=	g^2	=	g^2	→	g^2	=	(0100)
g^3	=	g^3	=	g^3	=	g^3	→	g^3	=	(1000)
g^4	=	g^4	=	g^4	=	$g + 1$	→	g^4	=	(0011)
g^5	=	$g(g^4)$	=	$g(g + 1)$	=	$g^2 + g$	→	g^5	=	(0110)
g^6	=	$g(g^5)$	=	$g(g^2 + g)$	=	$g^3 + g^2$	→	g^6	=	(1100)
g^7	=	$g(g^6)$	=	$g(g^3 + g^2)$	=	$g^3 + g + 1$	→	g^7	=	(1011)
g^8	=	$g(g^7)$	=	$g(g^3 + g + 1)$	=	$g^2 + 1$	→	g^8	=	(0101)
g^9	=	$g(g^8)$	=	$g(g^2 + 1)$	=	$g^3 + g$	→	g^9	=	(1010)
g^{10}	=	$g(g^9)$	=	$g(g^3 + g)$	=	$g^2 + g + 1$	→	g^{10}	=	(0111)
g^{11}	=	$g(g^{10})$	=	$g(g^2 + g + 1)$	=	$g^3 + g^2 + g$	→	g^{11}	=	(1110)
g^{12}	=	$g(g^{11})$	=	$g(g^3 + g^2 + g)$	=	$g^3 + g^2 + g + 1$	→	g^{12}	=	(1111)
g^{13}	=	$g(g^{12})$	=	$g(g^3 + g^2 + g + 1)$	=	$g^3 + g^2 + 1$	→	g^{13}	=	(1101)
g^{14}	=	$g(g^{13})$	=	$g(g^3 + g^2 + 1)$	=	$g^3 + 1$	→	g^{14}	=	(1001)

d to

Inverse

- Additive inverse: the element itself e.g. $(g^4 + g + 1) + (g^4 + g + 1) = 0$
- Multiplicative inverse: for g^i , it is g^{-i} where $-i \equiv k \pmod{2^n - 1}$
e.g. Inverse of g^4 is $g^{-4} = g^{15-4} = g^{11}$
(Class assignment: **verify $g^4 \cdot g^{11} = 1$**)

Operations

a. $g^3 + g^{12} + g^7 = g^3 + (g^3 + g^2 + g + 1) + (g^3 + g + 1) = g^3 + g^2 \rightarrow (1100)$

b. $g^3 - g^6 = g^3 + g^6 = g^3 + (g^3 + g^2) = g^2 \rightarrow (0100)$

0	$= 0$	$= 0$	$= 0$	$\longrightarrow$	0	$= (0000)$
g^0	$= g^0$	$= g^0$	$= g^0$	$\longrightarrow$	g^0	$= (0001)$
g^1	$= g^1$	$= g^1$	$= g^1$	$\longrightarrow$	g^1	$= (0010)$
g^2	$= g^2$	$= g^2$	$= g^2$	$\longrightarrow$	g^2	$= (0100)$
g^3	$= g^3$	$= g^3$	$= g^3$	$\longrightarrow$	g^3	$= (1000)$
g^4	$= g^4$	$= g^4$	$= g + 1$	$\longrightarrow$	g^4	$= (0011)$
g^5	$= g(g^4)$	$= g(g + 1)$	$= g^2 + g$	$\longrightarrow$	g^5	$= (0110)$
g^6	$= g(g^5)$	$= g(g^2 + g)$	$= g^3 + g^2$	$\longrightarrow$	g^6	$= (1100)$
g^7	$= g(g^6)$	$= g(g^3 + g)$	$= g^3 + g + 1$	$\longrightarrow$	g^7	$= (1011)$
g^8	$= g(g^7)$	$= g(g^3 + g + 1)$	$= g^2 + 1$	$\longrightarrow$	g^8	$= (0101)$
g^9	$= g(g^8)$	$= g(g^2 + 1)$	$= g^3 + g$	$\longrightarrow$	g^9	$= (1010)$
g^{10}	$= g(g^9)$	$= g(g^3 + g)$	$= g^2 + g + 1$	$\longrightarrow$	g^{10}	$= (0111)$
g^{11}	$= g(g^{10})$	$= g(g^2 + g + 1)$	$= g^3 + g^2 + g$	$\longrightarrow$	g^{11}	$= (1110)$
g^{12}	$= g(g^{11})$	$= g(g^3 + g^2 + g)$	$= g^3 + g^2 + g + 1$	$\longrightarrow$	g^{12}	$= (1111)$
g^{13}	$= g(g^{12})$	$= g(g^3 + g^2 + g + 1)$	$= g^3 + g^2 + 1$	$\longrightarrow$	g^{13}	$= (1101)$
g^{14}	$= g(g^{13})$	$= g(g^3 + g^2 + 1)$	$= g^3 + 1$	$\longrightarrow$	g^{14}	$= (1001)$

Operations (contd...)

a. $g^9 \times g^{11} = g^{20} = g^{20 \bmod 15} = g^5 = g^2 + g \rightarrow (0110)$

b. $g^3 / g^8 = g^3 \times g^7 = g^{10} = g^2 + g + 1 \rightarrow (0111)$

0	=	0	=	0	=	0	=	(0000)
g^0	=	g^0	=	g^0	=	g^0	=	(0001)
g^1	=	g^1	=	g^1	=	g^1	=	(0010)
g^2	=	g^2	=	g^2	=	g^2	=	(0100)
g^3	=	g^3	=	g^3	=	g^3	=	(1000)
g^4	=	g^4	=	g^4	=	$g + 1$	=	(0011)
g^5	=	$g(g^4)$	=	$g(g + 1)$	=	$g^2 + g$	=	(0110)
g^6	=	$g(g^5)$	=	$g(g^2 + g)$	=	$g^3 + g^2$	=	(1100)
g^7	=	$g(g^6)$	=	$g(g^3 + g)$	=	$g^3 + g + 1$	=	(1011)
g^8	=	$g(g^7)$	=	$g(g^3 + g + 1)$	=	$g^2 + 1$	=	(0101)
g^9	=	$g(g^8)$	=	$g(g^2 + 1)$	=	$g^3 + g$	=	(1010)
g^{10}	=	$g(g^9)$	=	$g(g^3 + g)$	=	$g^2 + g + 1$	=	(0111)
g^{11}	=	$g(g^{10})$	=	$g(g^2 + g + 1)$	=	$g^3 + g^2 + g$	=	(1110)
g^{12}	=	$g(g^{11})$	=	$g(g^3 + g^2 + g)$	=	$g^3 + g^2 + g + 1$	=	(1111)
g^{13}	=	$g(g^{12})$	=	$g(g^3 + g^2 + g + 1)$	=	$g^3 + g^2 + 1$	=	(1101)
g^{14}	=	$g(g^{13})$	=	$g(g^3 + g^2 + 1)$	=	$g^3 + 1$	=	(1001)

$$(g^k)^{-1} = g^{15-k}$$

Therefore, $g^3 / g^8 = g^3 \times (g^8)^{-1} = g^3 \times g^7 = g^{10}$

Multiplicative Inverse

- Multiplicative identity: 1 i.e., 00000...0001
- Multiplicative inverse: **extended Euclidean algorithm** on the given polynomial and modulus polynomial

In $GF(2^4)$, find the inverse of $(x^2 + 1)$ modulo $(x^4 + x + 1)$.

Finding inverse means: we are looking for a polynomial that, when multiplied by $(x^2 + 1)$ results in a remainder of 1. i.e. $(x^2 + 1) * \text{Inverse} \equiv 1 \pmod{x^4 + x + 1}$

Extended Euclid's Algorithm for Polynomials

$$(x^2 + 1) * \text{Inverse} \equiv 1 \pmod{(x^4 + x + 1)}$$

- We start with our two main polynomials in r_1 and r_2 .
- The t columns are "trackers." We initialize them as 0 and 1 because $0 \cdot r_1 + 1 \cdot r_2 = r_2$.

$$\text{Step 1: } (x^4 + x + 1) = (x^2 + 1)(x^2 + 1) + x$$

$$\text{Step 2: } (x^2 + 1) = (x)(x) + 1$$

$$\text{Step 3: } x = (1)(x) + 0$$

$$r_1 = q \cdot r_2 + r$$

q	r_1	r_2	r	t_1	t_2	t
$(x^2 + 1)$	$(x^4 + x + 1)$	$(x^2 + 1)$	(x)	(0)	(1)	$(x^2 + 1)$
(x)	$(x^2 + 1)$	(x)	(1)	(1)	$(x^2 + 1)$	$(x^3 + x + 1)$
(x)	(x)	(1)	(0)	$(x^2 + 1)$	$(x^3 + x + 1)$	(0)
	(1)	(0)		$(x^3 + x + 1)$	(0)	

$t = t_1 - q \cdot t_2$ For GF(2), it's same as $t = t_1 + q \cdot t_2$
 $(x^4 + x + 1) \div (x^2 + 1)$ remainder is x
 $(x^2 + 1) \div x$ remainder is 1
 $x \div 1$ remainder is 0 (Terminate now)

Result is $t_1 = (x^3 + x + 1)$

Note: In the last iteration *value of t* is mentioned as 0 because it's the 'stop' sign after getting remainder as 0

Class work: Verify whether $(x^2 + 1)(x^3 + x + 1) \equiv 1 \pmod{(x^4 + x + 1)}$

...Multiplicative Inverse

In $GF(2^8)$, find the inverse of (x^5) modulo $(x^8 + x^4 + x^3 + x + 1)$.

q	r_1	r_2	r	t_1	t_2	t
(x^3)	$(x^8 + x^4 + x^3 + x + 1)$	(x^5)	$(x^4 + x^3 + x + 1)$	(0)	(1)	(x^3)
$(x + 1)$	(x^5)	$(x^4 + x^3 + x + 1)$	$(x^3 + x^2 + 1)$	(1)	(x^3)	$(x^4 + x^3 + 1)$
(x)	$(x^4 + x^3 + x + 1)$	$(x^3 + x^2 + 1)$	(1)	(x^3)	$(x^4 + x^3 + 1)$	$(x^5 + x^4 + x^3 + x)$
$(x^3 + x^2 + 1)$	$(x^3 + x^2 + 1)$	(1)	(0)	$(x^4 + x^3 + 1)$	$(x^5 + x^4 + x^3 + x)$	(0)
	(1)	(0)		$(x^5 + x^4 + x^3 + x)$	(0)	

Class Assignment

Use of Galois Field in AES, Why?

- Numbers stay small
 - **everything in $GF(2^8)$ is always one byte**, even after multiplication or division.
- **Inverses exist for each operation, which makes decryption possible.**
- AES combines division in the first half of the S box, a transpose in the row shift, and **matrix operations during MixColumns and the second half of the S box.** [SubBytes, ShiftRows, MixColumns, AddroundKey]
- In AES the **irreducible polynomial used is $X^8 + X^4 + X^3 + X + 1$**

AES S-box

		<i>y</i>															
		0	1	2	3	4	5	6	7	8	9	A	B	C	D	E	F
<i>x</i>	0	63	7C	77	7B	F2	6B	6F	C5	30	01	67	2B	FE	D7	AB	76
	1	CA	82	C9	7D	FA	59	47	F0	AD	D4	A2	AF	9C	A4	72	C0
	2	B7	FD	93	26	36	3F	F7	CC	34	A5	E5	F1	71	D8	31	15
	3	04	C7	23	C3	18	96	05	9A	07	12	80	E2	EB	27	B2	75
	4	09	83	2C	1A	1B	6E	5A	A0	52	3B	D6	B3	29	E3	2F	84
	5	53	D1	00	ED	20	FC	B1	5B	6A	CB	BE	39	4A	4C	58	CF
	6	D0	EF	AA	FB	43	4D	33	85	45	F9	02	7F	50	3C	9F	A8
	7	51	A3	40	8F	92	9D	38	F5	BC	B6	DA	21	10	FF	F3	D2
	8	CD	0C	13	EC	5F	97	44	17	C4	A7	7E	3D	64	5D	19	73
	9	60	81	4F	DC	22	2A	90	88	46	EE	B8	14	DE	5E	0B	DB
	A	E0	32	3A	0A	49	06	24	5C	C2	D3	AC	62	91	95	E4	79
	B	E7	C8	37	6D	8D	D5	4E	A9	6C	56	F4	EA	65	7A	AE	08
	C	BA	78	25	2E	1C	A6	B4	C6	E8	DD	74	1F	4B	BD	8B	8A
	D	70	3E	B5	66	48	03	F6	0E	61	35	57	B9	86	C1	1D	9E
	E	E1	F8	98	11	69	D9	8E	94	9B	1E	87	E9	CE	55	28	DF
	F	8C	A1	89	0D	BF	E6	42	68	41	99	2D	0F	B0	54	BB	16

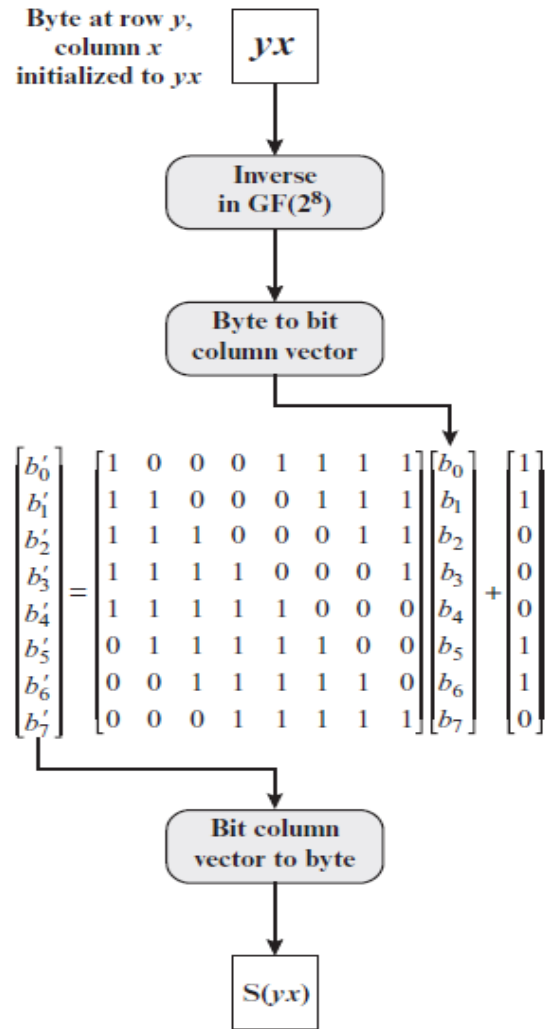
(a) S-box

AES Inverse S-Boxes

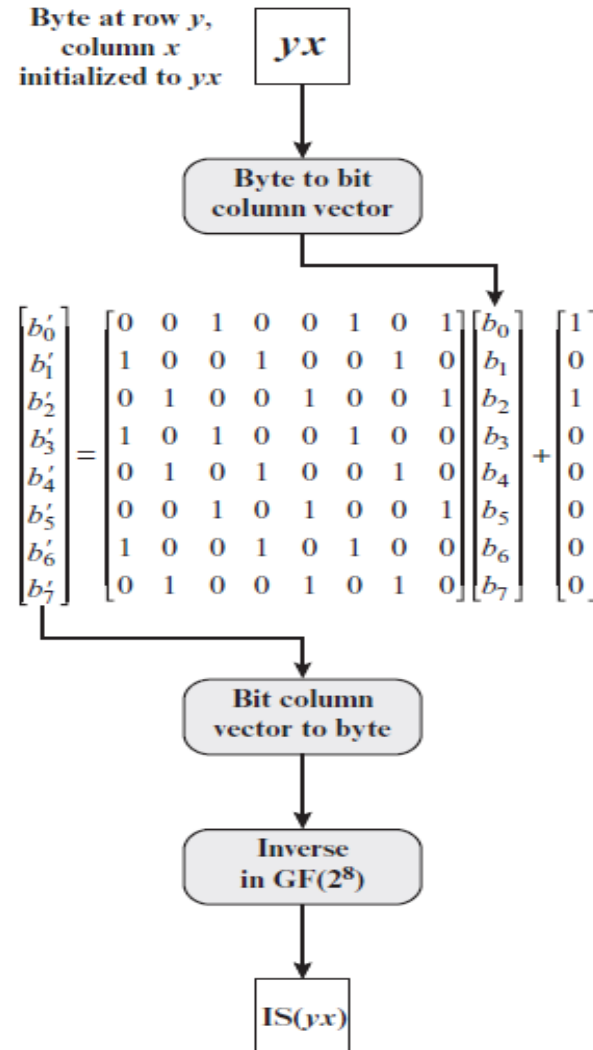
		<i>y</i>															
		0	1	2	3	4	5	6	7	8	9	A	B	C	D	E	F
<i>x</i>	0	52	09	6A	D5	30	36	A5	38	BF	40	A3	9E	81	F3	D7	FB
	1	7C	E3	39	82	9B	2F	FF	87	34	8E	43	44	C4	DE	E9	CB
	2	54	7B	94	32	A6	C2	23	3D	EE	4C	95	0B	42	FA	C3	4E
	3	08	2E	A1	66	28	D9	24	B2	76	5B	A2	49	6D	8B	D1	25
	4	72	F8	F6	64	86	68	98	16	D4	A4	5C	CC	5D	65	B6	92
	5	6C	70	48	50	FD	ED	B9	DA	5E	15	46	57	A7	8D	9D	84
	6	90	D8	AB	00	8C	BC	D3	0A	F7	E4	58	05	B8	B3	45	06
	7	D0	2C	1E	8F	CA	3F	0F	02	C1	AF	BD	03	01	13	8A	6B
	8	3A	91	11	41	4F	67	DC	EA	97	F2	CF	CE	F0	B4	E6	73
	9	96	AC	74	22	E7	AD	35	85	E2	F9	37	E8	1C	75	DF	6E
	A	47	F1	1A	71	1D	29	C5	89	6F	B7	62	0E	AA	18	BE	1B
	B	FC	56	3E	4B	C6	D2	79	20	9A	DB	C0	FE	78	CD	5A	F4
	C	1F	DD	A8	33	88	07	C7	31	B1	12	10	59	27	80	EC	5F
	D	60	51	7F	A9	19	B5	4A	0D	2D	E5	7A	9F	93	C9	9C	EF
	E	A0	E0	3B	4D	AE	2A	F5	B0	C8	EB	BB	3C	83	53	99	61
	F	17	2B	04	7E	BA	77	D6	26	E1	69	14	63	55	21	0C	7D

(b) Inverse S-box

Construction of S-Box



(a) Calculation of byte at row y , column x of S-box



(a) Calculation of byte at row y , column x of IS-box

Recall of Cayley tables

$GF(5)$

$\{0, 1, 2, 3, 4\}$ $+$ $\times$

+	0	1	2	3	4
0	0	1	2	3	4
1	1	2	3	4	0
2	2	3	4	0	1
3	3	4	0	1	2
4	4	0	1	2	3

Addition